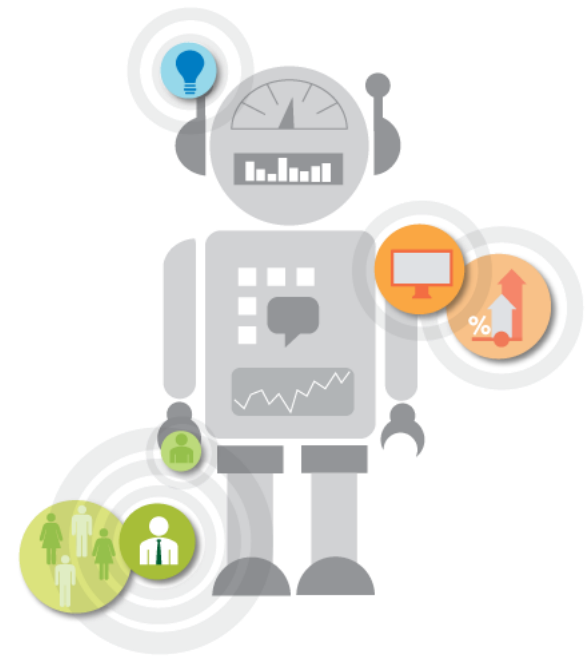


AI and Society

CSET-485

Dr. Pulkit Dwivedi



UNIT - 1

Logistic Regression

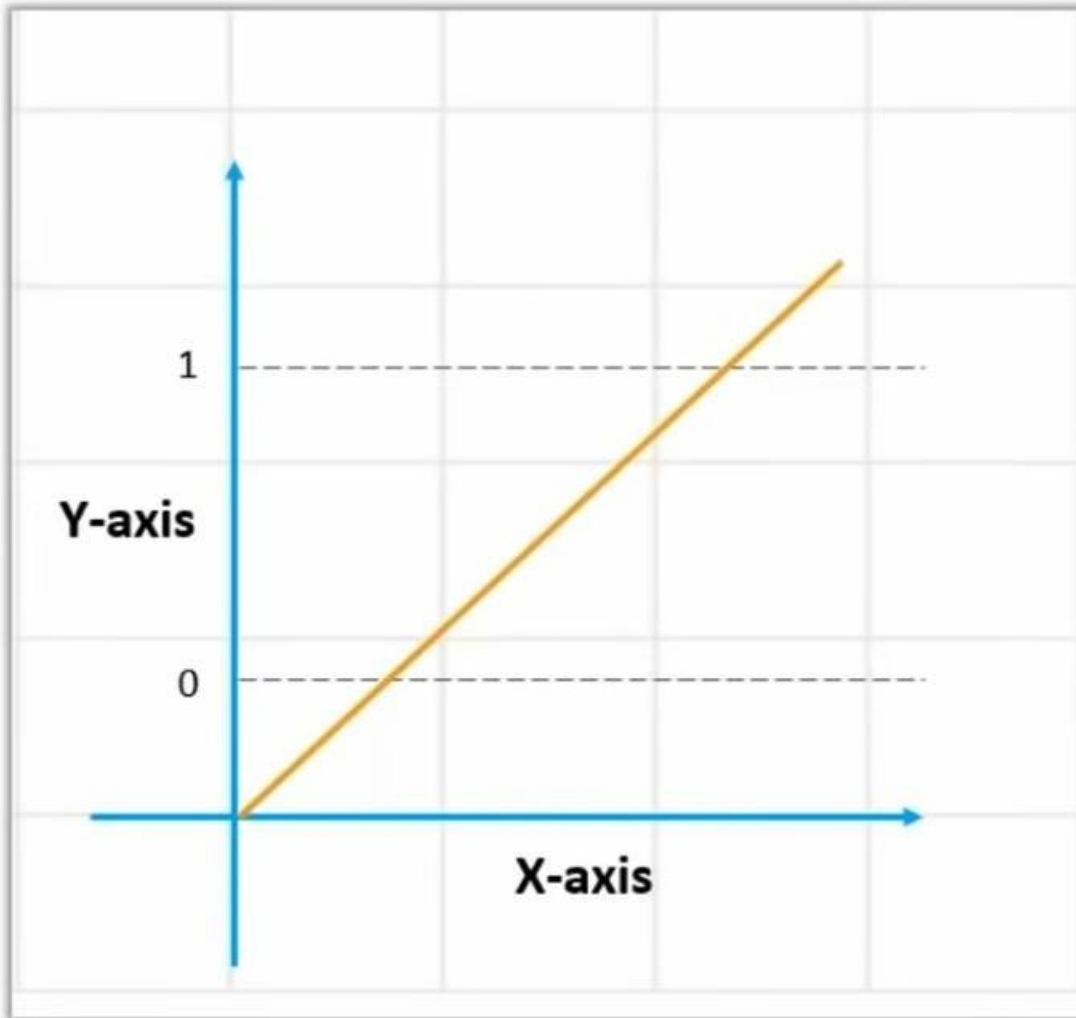


Logistic Regression

- Logistic Regression produces results in binary format which is used to predict the outcome of a categorical dependent variable.
- So the outcome should be discrete/categorical.

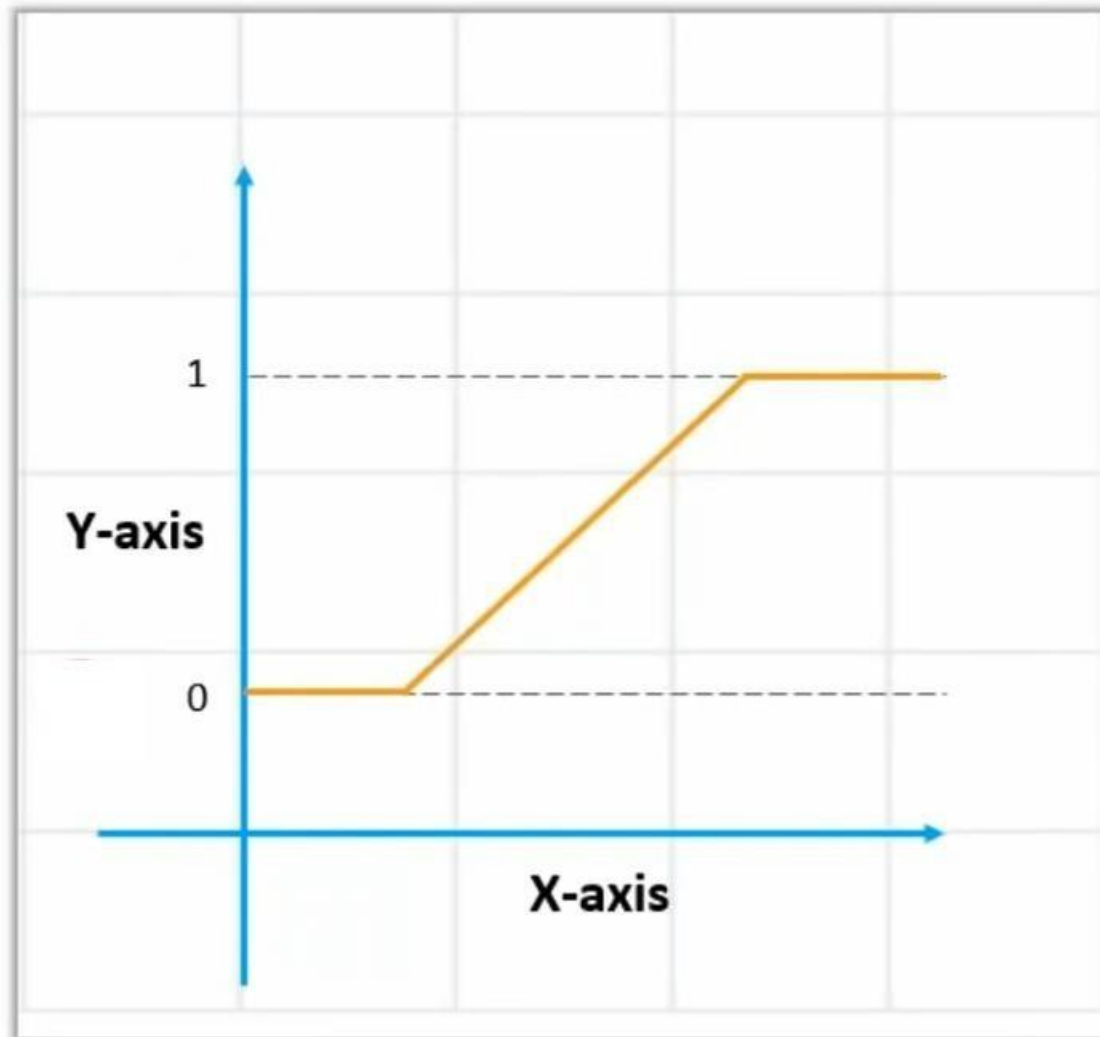


Why not Linear Regression?



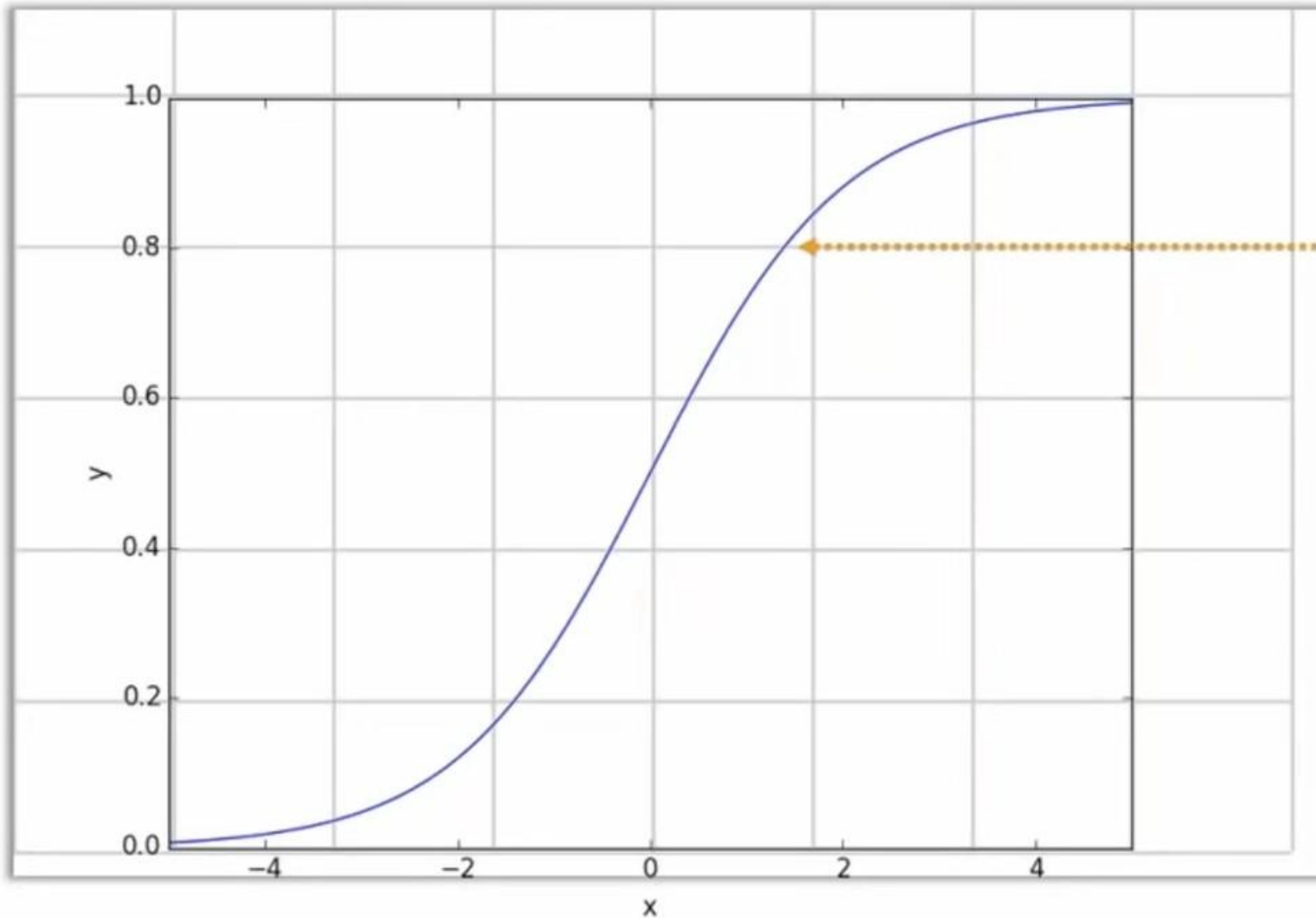
Since our value of Y will be between 0 and 1, the linear line has to be clipped at 0 and 1.

Why not Linear Regression?



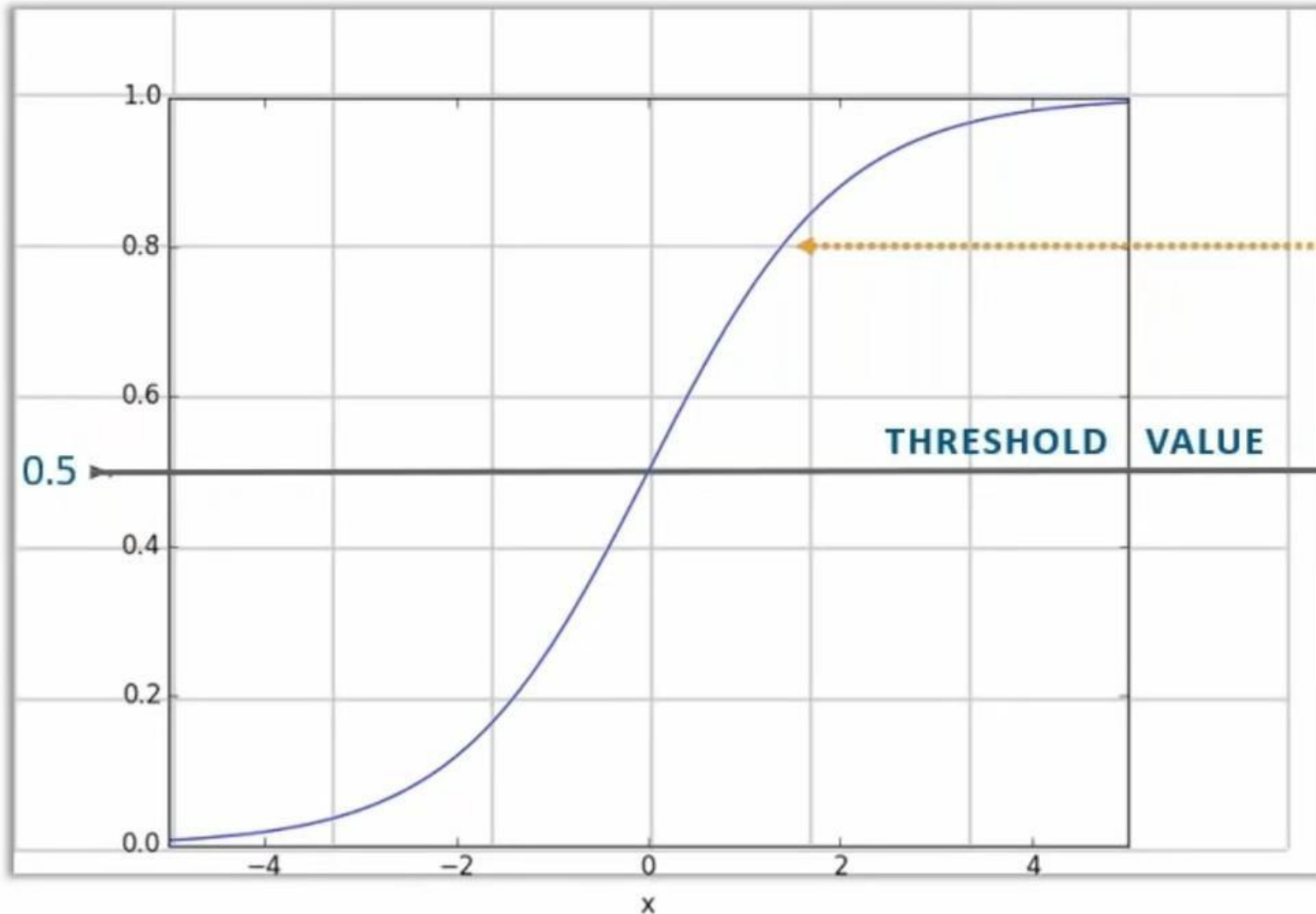
With this, our resulting curve cannot be formulated into a single formula. Hence we came up with **Logistic**!

Logistic Regression Curve



The Sigmoid "S"
Curve

Logistic Regression Curve



The Sigmoid "S"
Curve

With this, the
threshold value
indicates the
probability of winning
or losing

Logistic Regression: Mathematical Details

- Logistic regression is a type of statistical model used to analyze the relationship between a binary outcome variable (dependent variable) and one or more predictor variables (independent variables).
- The binary outcome variable takes on one of two possible values, usually 0 or 1, indicating the absence or presence of an event, respectively.
- The logistic regression model assumes that the log-odds of the probability of the binary outcome variable, which is also called the logit, is a linear combination of the predictor variables.
- Mathematically, this can be expressed as:

$$\text{logit}(p) = \beta_0 + \beta_1 x_1 + \beta_2 x_2 + \dots + \beta_p x_p$$

- where p is the probability of the binary outcome variable, β_0 is the intercept, $\beta_1, \beta_2, \dots, \beta_p$ are the coefficients for the predictor variables $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_p$, respectively.

Logistic Regression: Mathematical Details

- The logit function is defined as the natural logarithm of the odds of the event occurring, which is the probability of the event divided by the probability of its complement:

$$\text{logit}(p) = \ln(p/(1-p))$$

- By solving for p in the above equation, we get the logistic function:

$$p = 1 / (1 + \exp(-\text{logit}(p)))$$

- This logistic function has an S-shaped curve that ranges from 0 to 1, which represents the probability of the event occurring as a function of the predictor variables.

Logistic Regression: Derivation

- The probability that $Y=1$ given x is p , then the probability it does not happen is $1-p$.
Odds are defined as the ratio of the probability of success to failure

$$\text{odds} = \frac{p}{1-p}$$

- The odds range from 0 to $+\infty$, which is not very convenient for modeling with linear functions (which range from $-\infty$ to $+\infty$)
So, we take log of odds function, called logit function

$$\log \left(\frac{p}{1-p} \right)$$

- So, logistic regression assumes:

$$\log \left(\frac{p}{1-p} \right) = \beta_0 + \beta_1 x_1 + \beta_2 x_2 + \cdots + \beta_p x_p \quad \text{expressed as} \quad \log \left(\frac{p}{1-p} \right) = \beta^\top \mathbf{x}$$

Logistic Regression: Derivation

- Logistic regression models the log-odds (logit function) as a linear function of the predictors

The left side is the natural logarithm (log base e) of the odds $\frac{p}{1-p}$. Exponentiate **both sides** to "undo" the log:

So if $\log(A) = B$, then by definition of logarithms,

$$e^{\log\left(\frac{p}{1-p}\right)} = e^{\beta^\top \mathbf{x}}$$

$$A = e^B$$

Since $e^{\log(A)} = A$ (logarithm and exponent are inverse functions), this becomes:

$$\frac{p}{1-p} = e^{\beta^\top \mathbf{x}}$$

Multiply both sides by $(1-p)$:

Bring terms involving p together:

$$p = (1-p)e^{\beta^\top \mathbf{x}}$$

$$p = e^{\beta^\top \mathbf{x}} - pe^{\beta^\top \mathbf{x}}$$

$$p + pe^{\beta^\top \mathbf{x}} = e^{\beta^\top \mathbf{x}}$$

$$p(1 + e^{\beta^\top \mathbf{x}}) = e^{\beta^\top \mathbf{x}}$$

Linear Regression vs Logistic Regression



Linear Regression

1

Continuous variables

2

Solves Regression Problems

3

Straight line



Logistic Regression

1

Categorical variables

2

Solves Classification Problems

3

S-Curve

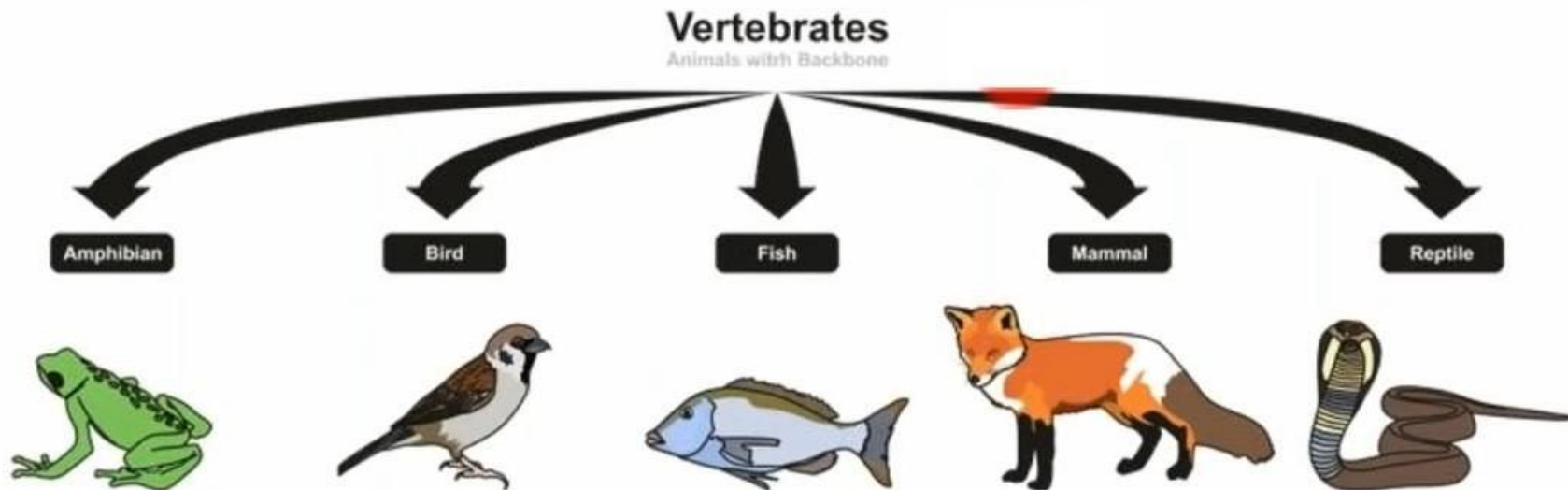
Applications of Logistic Regression: Weather predictions

- In weather predictions, logistic regression can be used to model the probability of certain weather events occurring, such as rainfall or snowfall, based on a set of predictor variables such as temperature, humidity, wind speed, and atmospheric pressure.



Applications of Logistic Regression: Classification Problems

- Logistic regression is commonly used in classification problems
- Logistic regression can be used to predict the probability of a particular species of vertebrate, such as a bird, fish, or mammal, based on a set of physical features such as beak shape, fin length, or body size.



Applications of Logistic Regression: Determine Illness

- Logistic regression can be used to predict the probability of a patient having a particular disease, based on a set of symptoms, medical history, or other clinical factors.
- For example, a logistic regression model could be built to predict the probability of a patient having diabetes, based on factors such as age, weight, family history, and blood sugar levels..



Evaluation Metrics: Confusion Matrix

- A confusion matrix is a table that is often used to describe the performance of a classification model (or "classifier") on a set of test data for which the true values are known.
- Consider binary classification:

n=165	Predicted: NO	Predicted: YES
	Actual: NO	Actual: YES
	50	10
	5	100

Evaluation Metrics: Confusion Matrix

- There are two possible predicted classes: "yes" and "no".
- If we were predicting the presence of a disease, for example, "yes" would mean they have the disease, and "no" would mean they don't have the disease.
- The classifier made a total of 165 predictions (e.g., 165 patients were being tested for the presence of that disease).
- Out of those 165 cases, the classifier predicted "yes" 110 times, and "no" 55 times.
- In reality, 105 patients in the sample have the disease, and 60 patients do not.

n=165	Predicted: NO	Predicted: YES
	Actual: NO	Actual: YES
Actual: NO	50	10
Actual: YES	5	100

Evaluation Metrics: Confusion Matrix

- **True positives (TP):** These are cases in which we predicted yes (they have the disease), and they do have the disease.
- **True negatives (TN):** We predicted no, and they don't have the disease.
- **False positives (FP):** We predicted yes, but they don't actually have the disease ("Type I error")
- **False negatives (FN):** We predicted no, but they actually do have the disease ("Type II error")

n=165	Predicted: NO	Predicted: YES
Actual: NO	50	10
Actual: YES	5	100

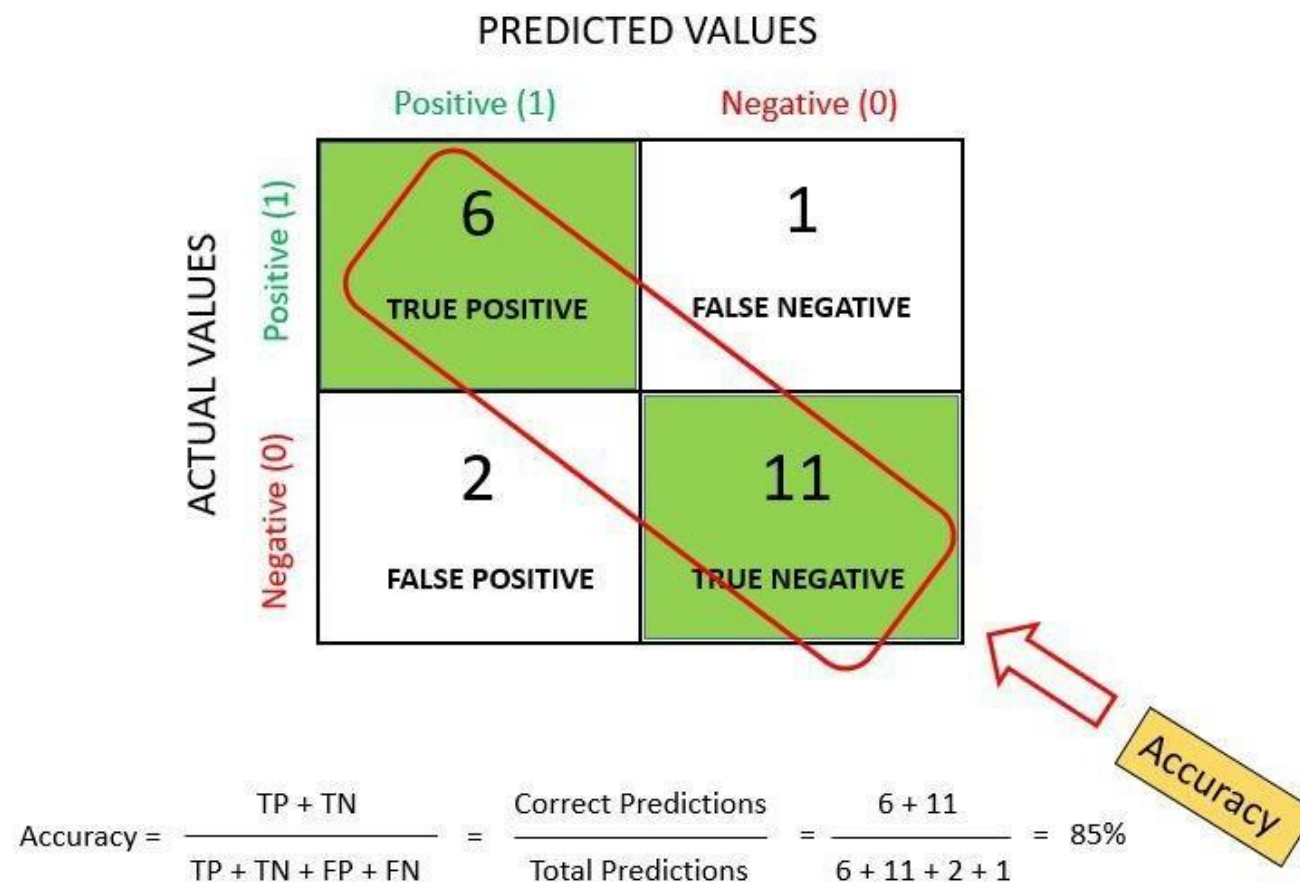
n=165	Predicted: NO	Predicted: YES	
Actual: NO	TN = 50	FP = 10	60
Actual: YES	FN = 5	TP = 100	105
	55	110	

Evaluation Metrics: Confusion Matrix

		Actual Values	
		1	0
Predicted Values	1	TRUE POSITIVE 	FALSE POSITIVE  TYPE 1 ERROR
	0	FALSE NEGATIVE  TYPE 2 ERROR	TRUE NEGATIVE 

Evaluation Metrics: Accuracy

- Accuracy simply measures how often the classifier makes the correct prediction. It's the ratio between the number of correct predictions and the total number of predictions.

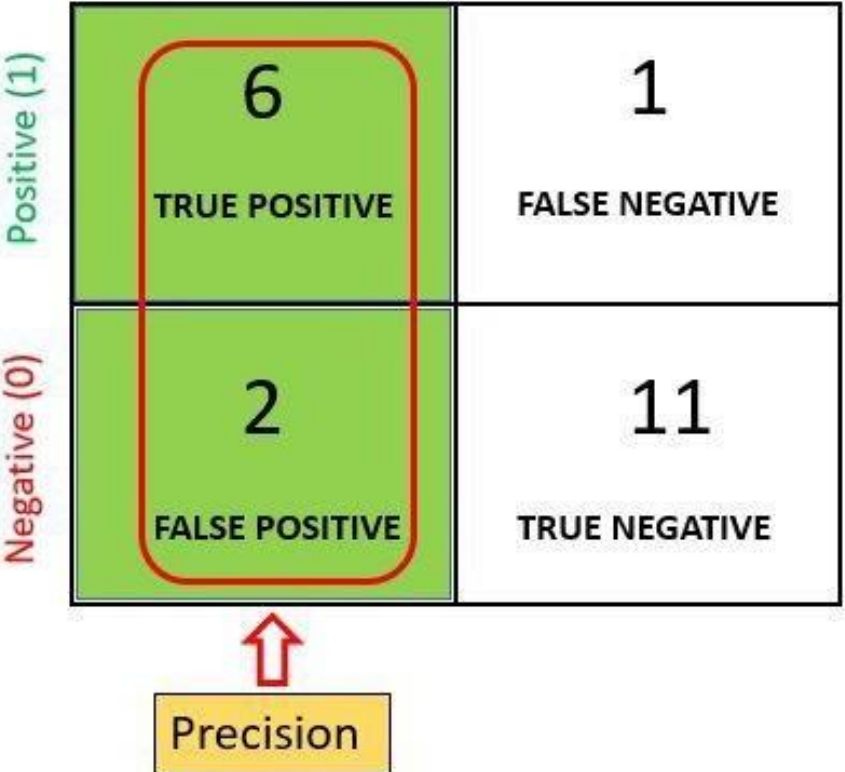


Evaluation Metrics: Precision

- It is a measure of **correctness** that is achieved in **true prediction**. In simple words, it tells us how many predictions are ***actually positive*** out of all the ***total positive predicted***.
- Precision is defined as the ratio of the total number of *correctly classified positive classes* divided by the *total number of predicted positive classes*.
- Or, out of all the predictive positive classes, how much we predicted correctly. **Precision should be high(ideally 1).**
- ***“Precision is a useful metric in cases where False Positive is a higher concern than False Negatives”***
- **Ex 1:- In Spam Detection** : Need to focus on **precision**
- Suppose **mail is not a spam** but model is **predicted as spam** : FP (False Positive). We always try to reduce FP.

Evaluation Metrics: Precision

		PREDICTED VALUES	
		Positive (1)	Negative (0)
ACTUAL VALUES	Positive (1)	6 TRUE POSITIVE	1 FALSE NEGATIVE
	Negative (0)	2 FALSE POSITIVE	11 TRUE NEGATIVE



$$\text{Precision} = \frac{\text{TP}}{\text{TP} + \text{FP}} = \frac{\text{Predictions Actually Positive}}{\text{Total Predicted positive}} = \frac{6}{6 + 2} = 0.75$$

Evaluation Metrics: Recall

- “It is a measure of **actual observations** which are predicted **correctly**, i.e. how many observations of positive class are actually predicted as positive.
- **Recall** is a valid choice of evaluation metric when we want to capture *as many positives* as possible.
- Recall is defined as the ratio of the total number of *correctly classified positive classes* divide by the *total number of positive classes*. Or, out of all the positive classes, how much we have predicted correctly. **Recall should be high(ideally 1).**
- “**Recall** is a useful metric in cases where **False Negative** trumps **False Positive**”
- **Ex 1:-** suppose person having cancer (or) not? **He is suffering from cancer** but model predicted as **not suffering from cancer**
- *Recall would be a better metric because we don't want to **accidentally discharge an infected person** and let them mix with the healthy population thereby **spreading contagious virus**. Now you can understand why accuracy was a bad metric for our model.*

Evaluation Metrics: Recall

		PREDICTED VALUES	
		Positive (1)	Negative (0)
ACTUAL VALUES	Positive (1)	6 TRUE POSITIVE	1 FALSE NEGATIVE
	Negative (0)	2 FALSE POSITIVE	11 TRUE NEGATIVE

← Recall

$$\text{Recall} = \frac{\text{TP}}{\text{TP} + \text{FN}} = \frac{\text{Predictions Actually Positive}}{\text{Total Actual positive}} = \frac{6}{6 + 1} = 0.85$$

Evaluation Metrics: F-measure / F1-Score

- The **F1 score** is a number between **0 and 1** and is the *harmonic mean of precision and recall*.
- **F1 score** sort of maintains a **balance** between the *precision and recall* for your classifier. If your *precision is low*, the *F1 is low* and if the *recall is low* again your *F1 score is low*.
- There will be cases where there is no clear distinction between whether *Precision is more important* or *Recall*. We combine them!

$$\text{F1-Score} = 2 * \frac{(\text{Recall} * \text{Precision})}{(\text{Recall} + \text{Precision})} = 2 * \frac{(0.85 * 0.75)}{(0.85 + 0.75)} = 0.79$$

Why so many evaluation metrics?

- Is it necessary to check for recall (or) precision if you already have a high accuracy?

Why so many evaluation metrics?

- Is it necessary to check for recall (or) precision if you already have a high accuracy?
- **We can not rely on a single value of accuracy in classification when the classes are imbalanced.**
- For example, we have a dataset of 100 patients in which 5 have diabetes and 95 are healthy. However, if our model only predicts the majority class i.e. all 100 people are healthy even though we have a classification accuracy of 95%.

When to use Accuracy / Precision / Recall / F1-Score?

- **Accuracy** is used when the *True Positives and True Negatives* are more important. **Accuracy** is a better metric for *Balanced Data*.
- Whenever **False Positive** is much more important use **Precision**.
- Whenever **False Negative** is much more important use **Recall**.
- **F1-Score** is used when the *False Negatives and False Positives* are important. **F1-Score** is a better metric for *Imbalanced Data*.